



Engineering Electromagnetics

工程电磁场

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9: Conductors & Dielectrics

• Current and Current Density 电流和电流密度

Current is a flux quantity and is defined as: $I = \frac{dQ}{dt}$

Current is defined as the motion of positive charges.

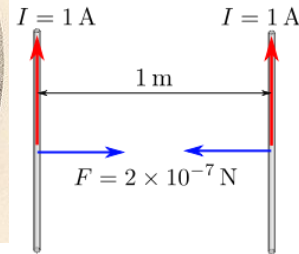
The unit of current is the ampere (A), and **Current is a scalar**.

Ampere is one of the **seven SI unit symbol**.

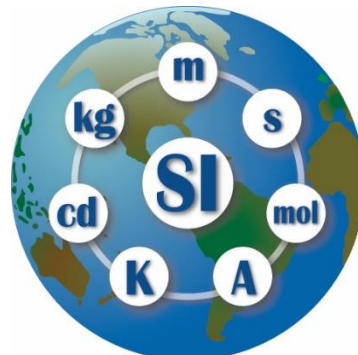
The constant current that will produce an attractive force of 2×10^{-7} newton per meter of length between two straight, parallel conductors of infinite length and negligible circular cross section placed one meter apart in a vacuum



André-Marie Ampère
(1775-1836)



国际计量局



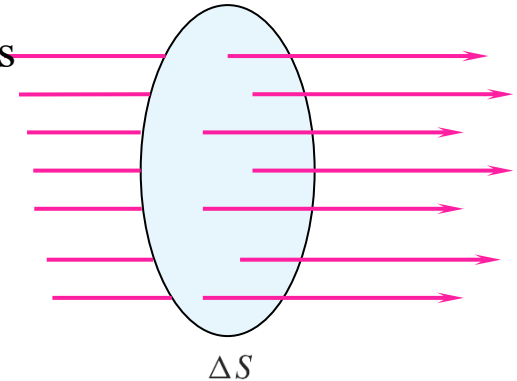
Meter Convention
米制公约

Metric Units (SI / MKS)				
Quantity	SI	Abbr.	U.S. Customary	Abbr.
Base Units				
Mass	kilogram	kg	2.205 pounds	lbs
Length	meter	m	3.281 feet	ft
Time	second	s		
Electric Current	ampere	A		
Temperature	kelvin	K	1.8 Fahrenheit	°F
Luminous Intensity	candela	cd		
Amount of Substance	mole	mol		
Derived Units				
Area	square meters	m ²	1.196 square yards	yd ²
Volume	cubic meters	m ³	35.32 cubic feet	ft ³
Density	kg per cubic meter	kg/m ³	0.06243 lbs / cubic foot	lbs/ft ³
Velocity	meters per second	m/s	2.237 miles per hour	mph
Acceleration	m/s per second	m/s ²	3.281 feet per sq. second	ft/s ²
Force	newton	N = (kg·m)/s ²	0.2248 pound-force	lb _f
Energy or Work	joule	J = (kg·m ²)/s ²	0.7376 foot-pounds	ft·lb _f
Power	watt	W = J·s	0.001341 horsepower	hp
Pressure	pascal	Pa = N/m ²	145.04 x 10 ⁻⁶ lbs. per sq. inch	psi

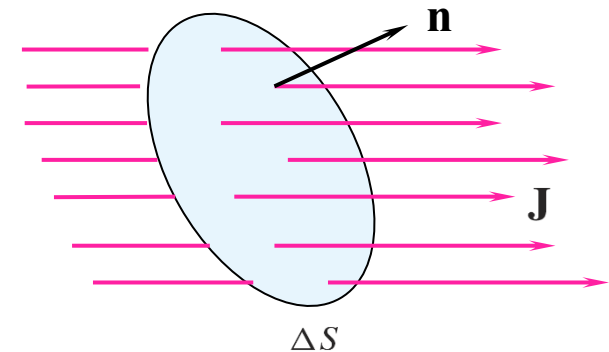
9: Conductors & Dielectrics

- Current and Current Density 电流和电流密度

Current density, J , measured in A/m^2 , yields current in Amps when it is integrated over a cross-sectional area. The assumption would be that **the direction of J is normal to the surface**, and so we would write: $\Delta I = J_N \Delta S$



In reality, the direction of current flow may not be normal to the surface in question, so **we treat current density as a vector**, and write the incremental flux through the small surface in the usual way: $\Delta I = \mathbf{J} \cdot \Delta \mathbf{S}$ where $\Delta \mathbf{S} = \mathbf{n} da$



Then, the current through a large surface is found through the flux integral:

$$I = \int_S \mathbf{J} \cdot d\mathbf{S}$$

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- Relation of Current to Charge Velocity

Consider a charge ΔQ , occupying volume Δv , moving in the positive x direction at velocity v_x

In terms of the volume charge density, we may write: $\Delta Q = \rho_v \Delta v = \rho_v \Delta S \Delta L$

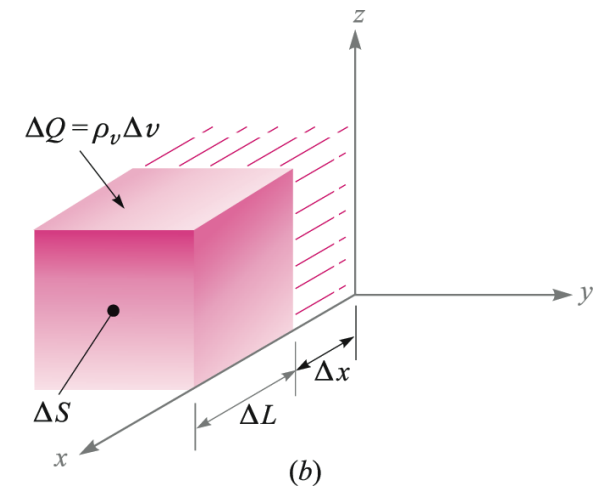
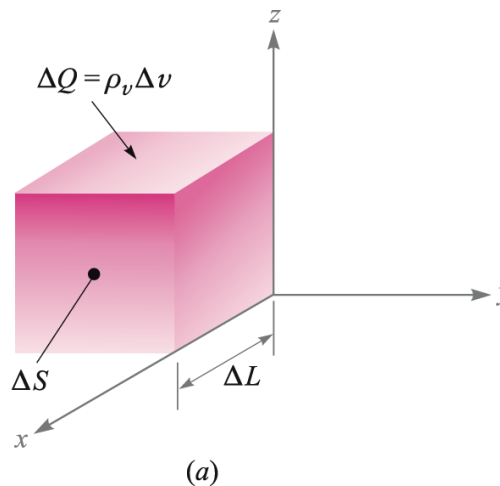
Suppose that in time Δt , the charge moves through a distance $\Delta x = \Delta L = v_x \Delta t$

Then $\Delta Q = \rho_v \Delta S \Delta x$

The motion of the charge represents a current given by:

$$\Delta I = \frac{\Delta Q}{\Delta t} = \rho_v \Delta S \frac{\Delta x}{\Delta t}$$

or $\Delta I = \rho_v \Delta S v_x$



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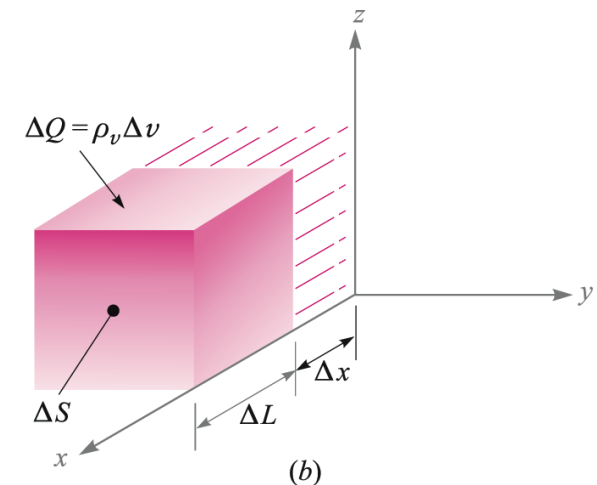
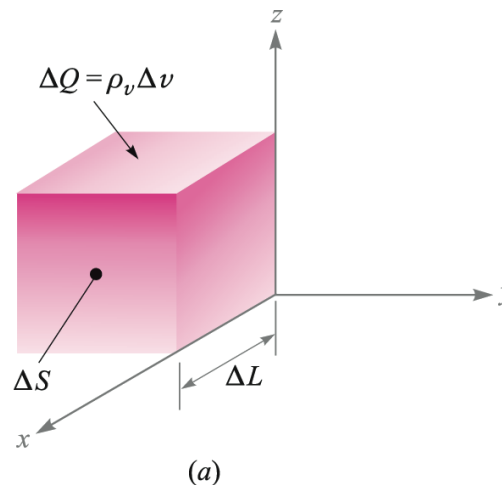
- Relation of Current to Charge Velocity

So we now have $\Delta I = \rho_v \Delta S v_x$

The current density is then: $J_x = \frac{\Delta I}{\Delta S} = \rho_v v_x$

So that in general:

$$\mathbf{J} = \rho_v \mathbf{v}$$



Q: How to define the direction of $\mathbf{v}$ herein ?

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• Continuity of Current 电流的连续性

Suppose that charge Q_i is escaping from a volume through closed surface S , to form current density $\mathbf{J}$. Then the total current is:

$$I = \oint_S \mathbf{J} \cdot d\mathbf{S} = -\frac{dQ_i}{dt} = -\frac{d}{dt} \int_{\text{vol}} \rho_v dv$$

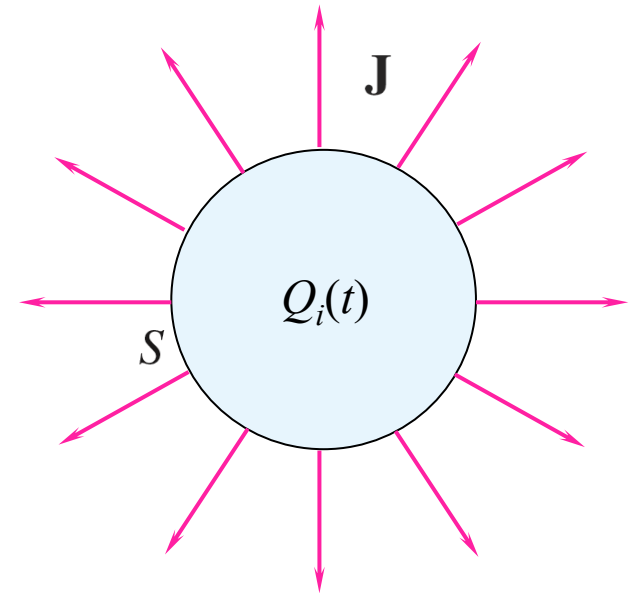
where the **minus sign is needed to produce positive outward flux**, while the interior charge is *decreasing* with time.

We now apply the divergence theorem:

$$\oint_S \mathbf{J} \cdot d\mathbf{S} = \int_{\text{vol}} (\nabla \cdot \mathbf{J}) dv$$

so that $\int_{\text{vol}} (\nabla \cdot \mathbf{J}) dv = -\frac{d}{dt} \int_{\text{vol}} \rho_v dv$

or $\int_{\text{vol}} (\nabla \cdot \mathbf{J}) dv = \int_{\text{vol}} -\frac{\partial \rho_v}{\partial t} dv$



The integrands of the last expression must be equal, leading to the **Equation of Continuity 连续性方程**

$$(\nabla \cdot \mathbf{J}) = -\frac{\partial \rho_v}{\partial t}$$

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- Example

Consider a current density that is directed radially outward and decreases exponentially with time,

$$\mathbf{J} = \frac{1}{r} e^{-t} \mathbf{a}_r \text{ A/m}^2$$

Selecting an instant of time $t = 1$ s, we may calculate the total outward current at $r = 5$ m:

$$I = J_r S = \left(\frac{1}{5} e^{-1}\right)(4\pi 5^2) = 23.1 \text{ A}$$

At the same instant, but for a slightly larger radius, $r = 6$ m, we have

$$I = J_r S = \left(\frac{1}{6} e^{-1}\right)(4\pi 6^2) = 27.7 \text{ A}$$

Thus, the total current is larger at $r = 6$ than it is at $r = 5$.

$$-\frac{\partial \rho_v}{\partial t} = \nabla \cdot \mathbf{J} = \nabla \cdot \left(\frac{1}{r} e^{-t} \mathbf{a}_r \right) = \frac{1}{r^2} \frac{\partial}{\partial r} \left(r^2 \frac{1}{r} e^{-t} \right) = \frac{1}{r^2} e^{-t}$$

9: Conductors & Dielectrics

- Example

$$-\frac{\partial \rho_v}{\partial t} = \nabla \cdot \mathbf{J} = \nabla \cdot \left(\frac{1}{r} e^{-t} \mathbf{a}_r \right) = \frac{1}{r^2} \frac{\partial}{\partial r} \left(r^2 \frac{1}{r} e^{-t} \right) = \frac{1}{r^2} e^{-t}$$

$$\rho_v = -\int \frac{1}{r^2} e^{-t} dt + K(r) = \frac{1}{r^2} e^{-t} + K(r)$$

If we assume that $\rho_v \rightarrow 0$ as $t \rightarrow \infty$, then $K(r) = 0$, and

$$\rho_v = \frac{1}{r^2} e^{-t} \text{ C/m}^3$$

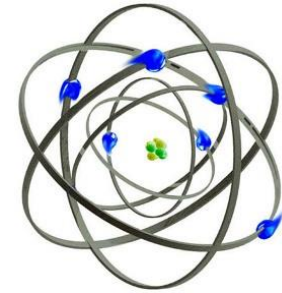
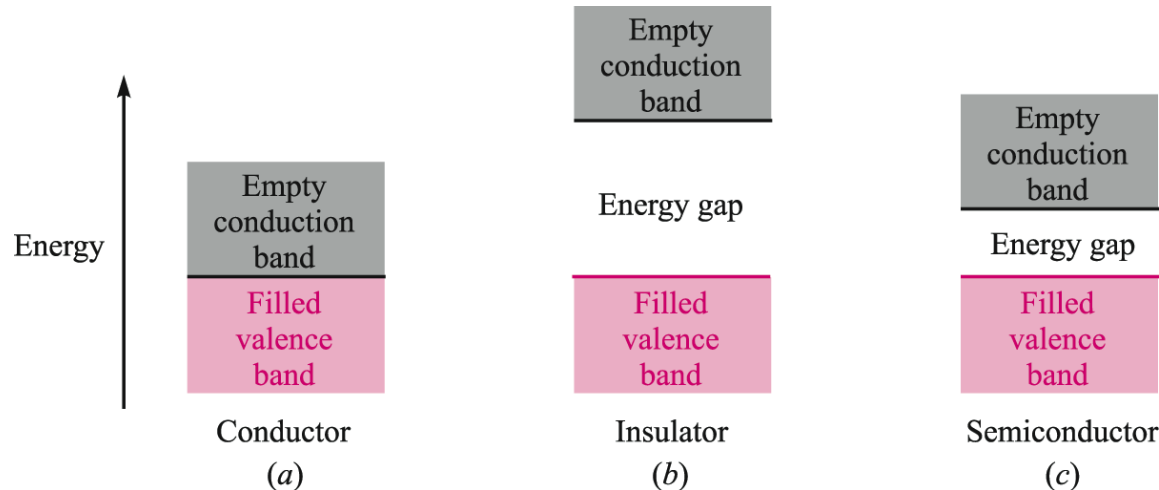
We may now use $\mathbf{J} = \rho_v \mathbf{v}$ to find the velocity,

$$v_r = \frac{J_r}{\rho_v} = \frac{\frac{1}{r} e^{-t}}{\frac{1}{r^2} e^{-t}} = r \text{ m/s}$$

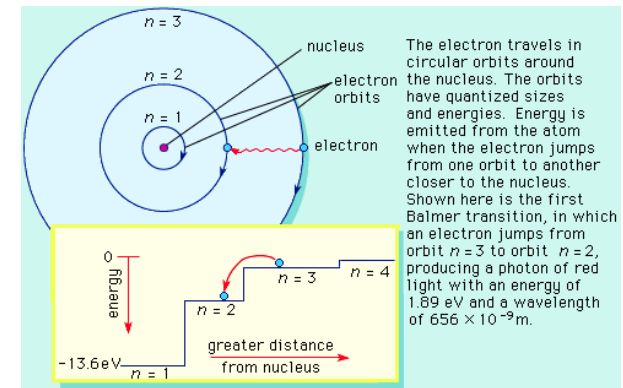
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• Metallic Conductors 金属导体

Energy Band Structure in Three Material Types



Rutherford's Atomic Model



Bohr Atomic Model

- Conductors exhibit no energy gap between valence and conduction bands, so electrons move freely.
- Insulators show large energy gaps, requiring large amounts of energy to lift electrons into the conduction band. When this occurs, the dielectric breaks down.
- Semiconductors have a relatively small energy gap, so modest amounts of energy (applied through heat, light, or an electric field) may lift electrons from valence to conduction bands.

9: Conductors & Dielectrics

- Electron Flow in Conductors

Free electrons move under the influence of an electric field. The applied force on an electron of charge $Q = -e$ will be

$$\mathbf{F} = -e\mathbf{E}$$

When forced, the electron accelerates to **an equilibrium velocity**, known as the *drift velocity* 漂移速度:

$$\mathbf{v}_d = -\mu_e \mathbf{E}$$

where μ_e is the **electron mobility** 漂移率, expressed in units of $\text{m}^2/(\text{Vs})$. The drift velocity is used to find the current density through:

$$\mathbf{J} = \rho_v \mathbf{v}_d = -\rho_e \mu_e \mathbf{E} = \sigma \mathbf{E}$$

$$\mathbf{J} = \sigma \mathbf{E}$$

from which we identify the **conductivity** 电导率 for the case of electron flow :

$$\sigma = -\rho_e \mu_e \quad \text{S/m}$$

9: Conductors & Dielectrics

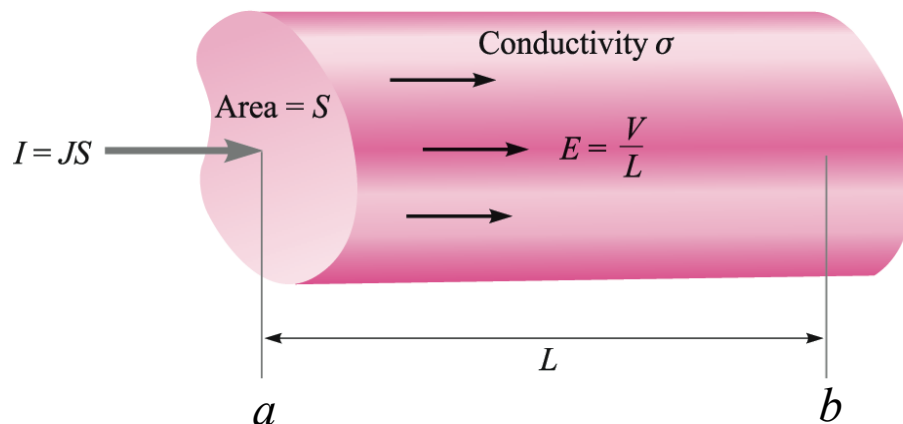
• Conductance & Resistance 电导 & 电阻

Consider the cylindrical conductor shown here, with voltage V applied across the ends. Current flows down the length, and is assumed to be uniformly distributed over the cross-section, S .

First, we can write the voltage and current in the cylinder in terms of field quantities:

$$V_{ab} = -\int_b^a \mathbf{E} \cdot d\mathbf{L} = -\mathbf{E} \cdot \int_b^a d\mathbf{L} = -\mathbf{E} \cdot \mathbf{L}_{ba} = \mathbf{E} \cdot \mathbf{L}_{ab} \Rightarrow V = EL$$

$$I = \int_S \mathbf{J} \cdot d\mathbf{S} = JS \Rightarrow J = \frac{I}{S} = \sigma E = \sigma \frac{V}{L} \Rightarrow \underline{V = \frac{L}{\sigma S} I}$$



Using Ohm's Law:

$$V = IR$$

We find the **resistance** of the cylinder:

$$R = \frac{L}{\sigma S}$$

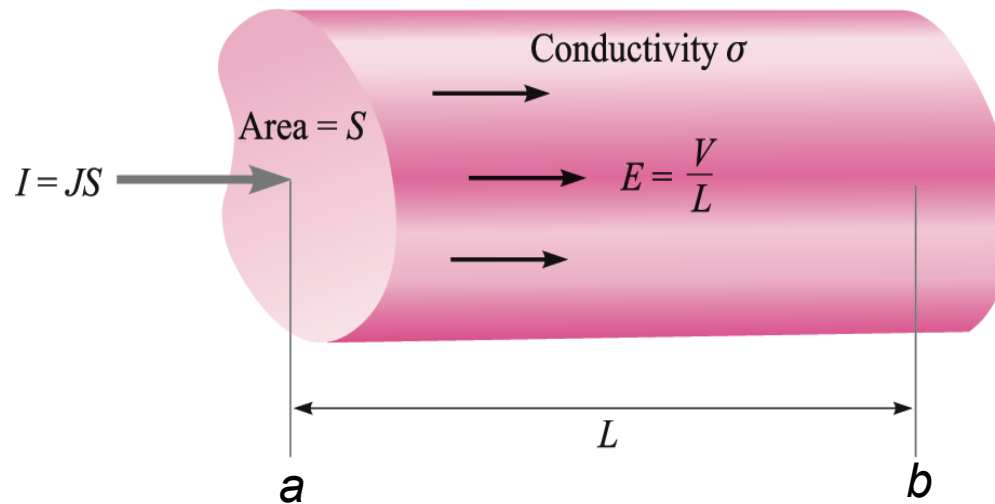
Unit: ohm

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- Conductance & Resistance 电导&电阻

General Expression for Resistance

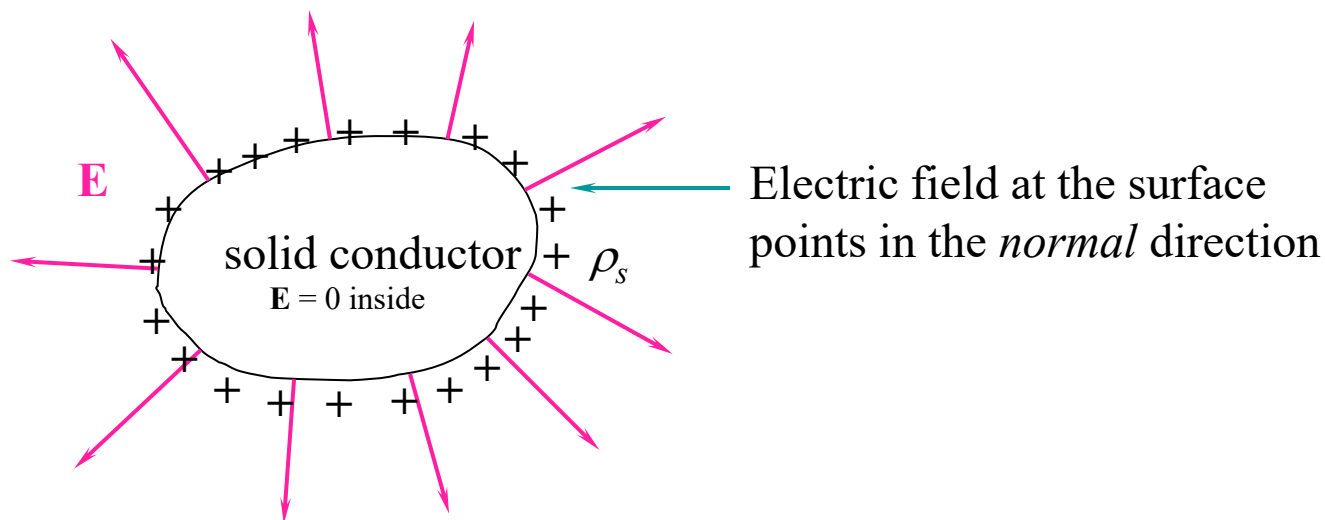
$$R = \frac{V_{ab}}{I} = \frac{-\int_b^a \mathbf{E} \cdot d\mathbf{L}}{\int_S \sigma \mathbf{E} \cdot d\mathbf{S}}$$



9: Conductors & Dielectrics

- Electrostatic Properties of Conductors

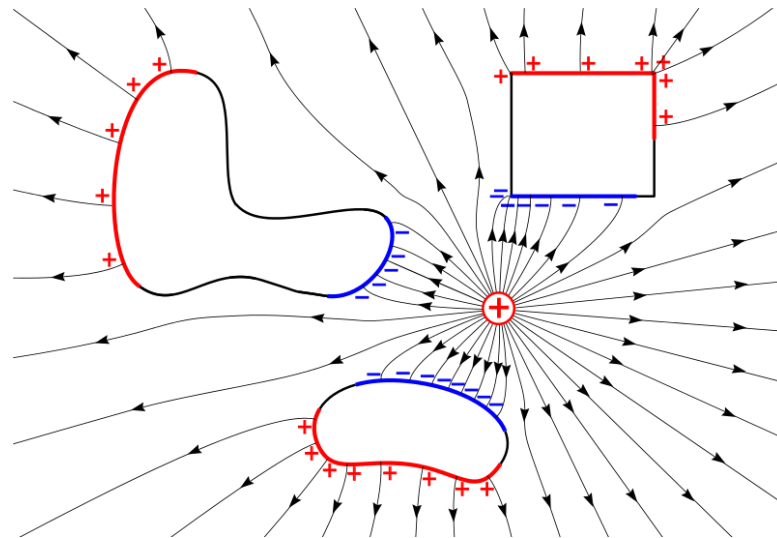
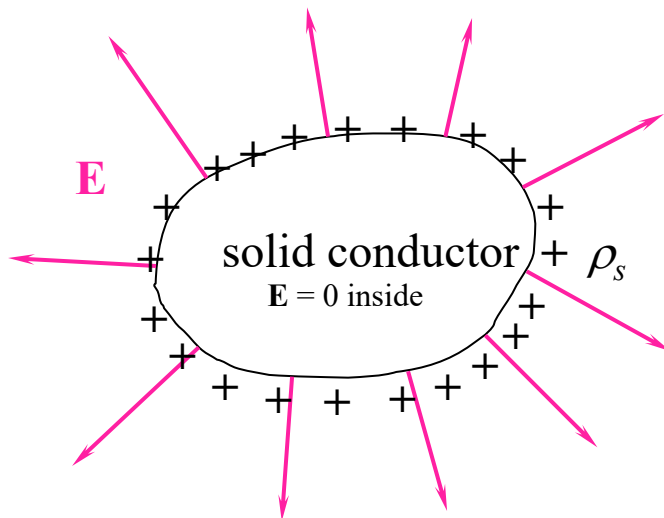
Consider a conductor, on which *excess charge* has been placed



1. Charge can exist only on the surface as a surface charge density, ρ_s -- *not* in the interior.
2. Electric field *cannot* exist in the interior, nor can it possess a tangential component at the surface.
3. It follows from condition 2 that the surface of a conductor is an *equipotential*.

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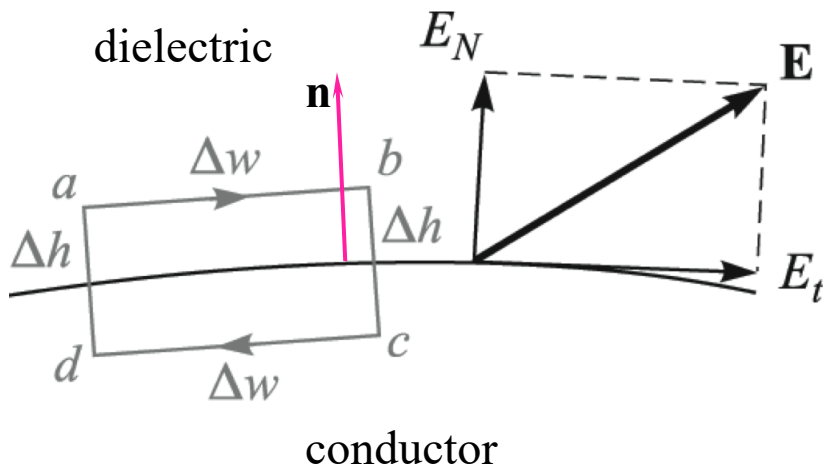
- Boundary Condition

Over the rectangular integration path, we use

$$\oint \mathbf{E} \cdot d\mathbf{L} = 0 \quad \text{or} \quad \int_a^b + \int_b^c + \int_c^d + \int_d^a = 0$$

To find: $E_t \Delta w - E_{N, \text{at } b} \frac{1}{2} \Delta h + E_{N, \text{at } a} \frac{1}{2} \Delta h = 0$

These become negligible as Δh approaches zero.



Therefore

$$E_t = 0$$

More formally:

$$\mathbf{E} \times \mathbf{n}|_s = 0$$

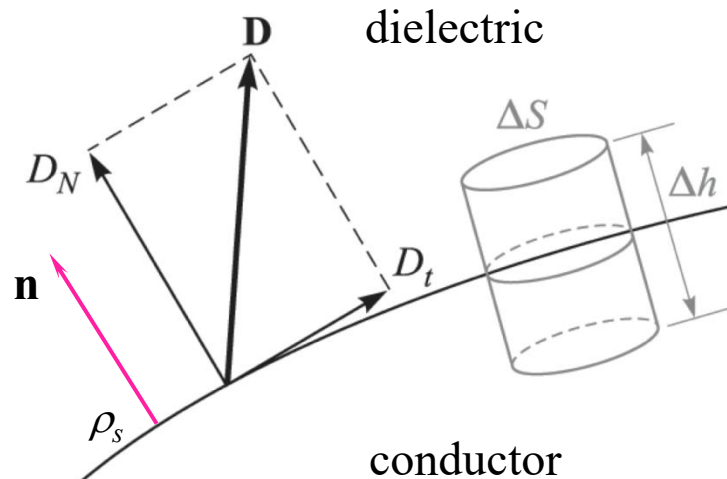
9: Conductors & Dielectrics

- Boundary Condition

Gauss' Law is applied to the cylindrical surface shown below:

$$\oint_S \mathbf{D} \cdot d\mathbf{S} = \int_{\text{top}} + \cancel{\int_{\text{bottom}}} + \cancel{\int_{\text{sides}}} = Q$$

This reduces to: $D_N \Delta S = Q = \rho_S \Delta S$ as Δh approaches zero



Therefore

$$D_N = \rho_S$$

More formally:

$$\mathbf{D} \cdot \mathbf{n}|_S = \rho_S$$



9: Conductors & Dielectrics

- Summary

1. The static electric field intensity inside a conductor is zero.
2. The static electric field intensity at the surface of a conductor is everywhere directed normal to that surface.
3. The conductor surface is an equipotential surface.

$$\mathbf{E} \times \mathbf{n}|_s = 0 \quad \text{Tangential } \mathbf{E} \text{ is zero}$$

At the surface:

$$\mathbf{D} \cdot \mathbf{n}|_s = \rho_s \quad \text{Normal } \mathbf{D} \text{ is equal to the surface charge density}$$



9: Conductors & Dielectrics

- Example

Given the potential,

$$V = 100(x^2 - y^2)$$

and a point $P(2, -1, 3)$ that is stipulated to lie on a conductor-to-free-space boundary, find V , $\mathbf{E}$, $\mathbf{D}$, and ρ_S at P , and also the equation of the conductor surface.

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Solution. The potential at point P is

$$V_P = 100[2^2 - (-1)^2] = 300 \text{ V}$$

Because the conductor is an equipotential surface, the potential at the entire surface must be 300 V. Moreover, if the conductor is a solid object, then the potential everywhere in and on the conductor is 300 V, for $\mathbf{E} = 0$ within the conductor.

The equation representing the locus of all points having a potential of 300 V is

$$300 = 100(x^2 - y^2)$$

or

$$x^2 - y^2 = 3$$

9: Conductors & Dielectrics

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Next, we find $\mathbf{E}$ by the gradient operation,

$$\mathbf{E} = -100\nabla(x^2 - y^2) = -200x\mathbf{a}_x + 200y\mathbf{a}_y$$

At point P ,

$$\mathbf{E}_P = -400\mathbf{a}_x - 200\mathbf{a}_y \text{ V/m}$$

Because $\mathbf{D} = \epsilon_0\mathbf{E}$, we have

$$\mathbf{D}_P = 8.854 \times 10^{-12}\mathbf{E}_P = -3.54\mathbf{a}_x - 1.771\mathbf{a}_y \text{ nC/m}^2$$

The field is directed downward and to the left at P ; it is normal to the equipotential surface. Therefore,

$$D_N = |\mathbf{D}_P| = 3.96 \text{ nC/m}^2$$

Thus, the surface charge density at P is

$$\rho_{S,P} = D_N = 3.96 \text{ nC/m}^2$$

9: Conductors & Dielectrics

- Example

Given the potential,

$$V = 100(x^2 - y^2)$$

and a point $P(2, -1, 3)$ that is stipulated to lie on a conductor-to-free-space boundary, find V , $\mathbf{E}$, $\mathbf{D}$, and ρ_S at P , and also the equation of the conductor surface.

Finally, let us determine the equation of the streamline passing through P .

Solution. We see that

$$\frac{E_y}{E_x} = \frac{200y}{-200x} = -\frac{y}{x} = \frac{dy}{dx}$$

Thus,
$$\frac{dy}{y} + \frac{dx}{x} = 0$$

$$\ln y + \ln x = C_1$$

Therefore,
$$xy = C_2$$

The line (or surface) through P is obtained when $C_2 = (2)(-1) = -2$

Thus,
$$xy = -2$$

